6 Being fashionable in today's Tunisia: what about cultural identity?

Fatma Smaoui and Ghofrane Ghariani

Fashion is today an important feature of the contemporary consumer's life. Goods, services and different consumption areas are influenced by the 'fashion system' (Barthes, 1967). Solomon and Rabolt (2009, p. xi) describe fashion as a 'driving force that shapes the way we live – it influences our apparel, hairstyles, art, food, cosmetics, . . . and many other aspects of our daily lives.' By increasing the renewal of forms and the inconsistency of the realm of appearances, fashion enables novelty to be promoted (Lipovesky, 1994). 'It is responsible for consumers changing their wardrobes, music systems, furniture and the cars they drive' (Solomon and Rabolt, 2009, p. 5). Fashion also brings emotion to the purchasing act by adding to the utility function of the product, a hedonic function, related to fantasy and change (Lipovesky, 1994).

The consumer–fashion relationship is complex and goes beyond the mere consumption of goods and services (Davis, 1992; Marion, 2003; Thompson and Haytko, 1997). Fashion meets consumers' hedonist and communication needs and helps with building self and social identities, and expressing individual and cultural values (Marion, 2003; O'Cass, 2001; Sandıkcı and Ger, 2002; Thompson and Haytko, 1997). In fact, fashion reflects society, its culture and how people define themselves (Solomon and Rabolt, 2009). Consumers find in fashion goods symbolic resources which enable them to improve self expression and contribute to their communication with group and culture members. The fashion system is a part of the symbols and meanings characterizing a culture (Craik, 1994; Davis, 1992; Marion, 2003; Solomon, 2004).

Most of the studies dealing with fashion and consumption are conducted in a Western cultural context. Sociologists and anthropologists have associated the emergence of the modern form of fashion with the West (for example Davis, 1992; Finkelstein 1991; McCracken, 1988). Indeed, fashion is intimately related to the emergence of the bourgeois culture in Europe and is inseparable from the competition between classes – between an aristocracy anxious to display its magnificence and a wealthy bourgeoisie eager to imitate it (Lipovetsky and Charles, 2005, p. 4). The development of modern mass consumption was largely enhanced by the fashion system based upon the dismissal of the past (and tradition) and the promotion of novelty and change. Recently, the logic of fashion has been extended to the entire body of the society. Indeed, society as a whole has been restructured in accordance with the logic of seduction, of permanent renewal and marginal differentiation, contributing to the emergence of the postmodern consumer society (Lipovetsky and Charles, 2005). Fashion is thus considered as a Western modern, as well as post-modern institution, characterized by the proliferation of styles and the mass consumption of fashion goods (Lipovetsky, 1994).

Eastern, Arab and/or Islamic consumers are also involved with fashion: the desire to be 'in style' is considered today to be a widespread consumption preoccupation (Abaza,

M2734 - SANDIKCI PRINT.indd 97 25/07/2011 14:40

2007; Hansen, 2004; Jones, 2007; Moors, 2007). Globalization, mass media and the shift towards a mass consumption society have contributed to the diffusion of a global Western consuming culture.

To date, the topic of Islamic and emerging countries' consumption practices is under-investigated (Sandıkcıı and Ger, 2002, 2007; Touzani and Hirschman, 2008; Üstüner and Holt, 2007, 2010). Some recent contributions study fashion in Islamic societies, with a focus on fashion clothing, and on Islamic fashion and women veiling (Moors, 2007; Sandıkcı and Ger, 2010; Tarlo, 2007). Anthropological studies try to understand the relationship between fashion and faith through the way Islamic women's dress has changed over the years. Struggle over identity seems to be a central issue in the complex and ambivalent relationship between Islamic consumer and fashion. For example, the desire to enter modernity through fashion consumption is negotiated with personal, local and Islamic values. Nevertheless, the various Islamic nations, even if they all practice the same religion, show cultural, historical or social specificities. Indonesian, Yemenite, Turkish, Egyptian or Tunisian consumers differ in language, ethnic origin and history, which may shape their national identities and determine their consumption patterns.

Tunisia is a small Arab-Muslim country, situated in North Africa. It is part of the 'Maghreb,' the name given by Arabs, which literally means 'sunset' or 'the West' because of its Western position compared to other Arab countries. It is also a Mediterranean country, which has been in contact with several Eastern and Western civilizations because of its strategic geographical location. Formerly colonized by France, Tunisia has undergone, since its independence, important pro-Western reforms that contributed to modernizing the country and to the shaping of a new Tunisian national identity, one that is multicultural and open to Western culture (Abassi, 2005; Bouhdiba, 1978).

How do Tunisian consumers experience fashion? How do cultural, social and religious factors shape their relationship with fashion? And what is the place of identity in the Tunisian consumer–fashion relationship? The objective of the present research study is to explore the consumer–fashion relationship in a Tunisian Arab-Muslim context and to emphasize the particular role played by the identity concept in such a relationship.

FASHION DEFINITION AND CHARACTERISTICS

Fashion can be defined as a process of social diffusion according to which a new style is adopted by certain groups of consumers (Solomon, 2004). The 'fashion system' (Barthes, 1967) consists of all the persons and organizations involved in the creation of symbolic meanings and their transfer to the cultural consumption products. Lipovetsky (1994, p. 55) dates the development of fashion in its modern form to the second half of the 19th century. Historically, it has been associated with clothing and still is today (Carpenter and al., 2005; O'Cass, 2001; Parker and al., 2004). However, today fashion influences all types of products and services ranging from apparel, books, entertainment, furniture and many other cultural consumption products (Hetzel, 1995). Fashion characterizes modern and postmodern consumption society: 'fashion becomes an exceptional highly problematic institution, a socio-historical reality of the West and modernity itself' (Lipovetsky, 1994, p. 4). Its logic of inconsistency, its great organizational and aesthetic diversity as well as individuals' variety seeking are in line with the increasing individu-

alization of tastes. The development of the 'Western model of fashion' (Davis, 1992; McCracken, 1988), with its cultural images broadcast by advertising and mass media, has been interpreted as a cornerstone of the ideology of consumption, boosting Western capitalist economies (Bocock, 1993; Firat, 1991; Lury, 1996; Peters, 1992). Fashion is regarded as a social phenomenon that affects several people simultaneously, but also as an individual phenomenon exerting a very personal effect on each consumer.

CULTURAL AND SYMBOLIC DIMENSIONS OF FASHION

In the frame of the current consumption context, purchase decisions are often motivated by a desire to be fashionable. Fashion products are aesthetic products rooted in art and history. According to Douglas and Isherwood (1979), consumption is a large information system that allows each individual to position himself/herself in a complex and uncertain world. Consumers do not buy products just to fulfill their needs or display a status, they also engage in the construction of a meaningful personal world. The identification, classification and comparison between owned and used objects make it possible to organize the social relationship and to categorize people and situations (Marion, 2003).

FASHION, IDENTITY AND CULTURE

Identity is intimately related to the self but also operates within the social environment. The symbolic system of objects helps the contemporary individual to shape his/her identity. A concept such as the 'extended self' (Belk, 1988) underlines the importance of objects in the construction of one's individual and social images. Fashion offers a consumption context where the needs for self expression but also for belongingness are rather high (Marion, 2003; McCracken, 1986; Thompson and Haytko, 1997). However, the sensitivity of the identity to fashion is not necessarily common to all (for example Parker and al., 2004). Results of a study undertaken simultaneously in the United Kingdom, Brazil and China (Rocha et al., 2005) showed that young British respondents granted more importance to fashion (as a variable expressing their identities) than did Chinese or Brazilian respondents. This difference could be explained by the existence of a true tradition of innovation in the United Kingdom. Brazilian respondents were much more searching for national identity, while for Chinese individuals traditional values prevail. Every individual develops multiple identities: an individual one, a social one, and also a cultural one. Belonging to a culture is reflected by the acceptance and adherence to its values, codes as well as aesthetic standards, moral and religious values, and historical backgrounds, which all together contribute to the development of the cultural identity of a community and of its members (Mucchielli, 1999). One of the characteristics of the identity is precisely that it has a stable core of values which ensures the essential connection between the individual, his/her culture and the different groups of belonging. The fashion system produces meanings for objects and styles in a specific cultural background (McCracken, 1986) that cannot be reproduced identically in a different culture.

The complexity and the depth of the relationship between consumers, culture, fashion and identity have been underlined in several research studies conducted mainly

in Western cultural settings, and more recently in some Eastern and Islamic countries (Abaza, 2007; Balasescu, 2003; Jones, 2007; Sandıkcı and Ger, 2010). Thompson and Haytko (1997), in the US, and Marion (2003) in France, found that fashion discourse developed by the interviewees translated a complex system of cultural significances specific to the individual. French teenagers' acceptance or rejection of fashion products represents lifestyle choices, contributes to identity formation and expresses their life project. Fashion discourses go beyond fashion consumption to reflect a dynamic dialectic about the meanings of consumption and culture. Thompson and Haytko (1997) found that respondents do not hold a single and stereotyped fashion concept. Rather, they develop personal interpretations according to their system of values, their history and their objectives. The relationship with fashion thus goes beyond the simple identification or rejection and represents instead, a negotiation between the individual and the system of beliefs and values of the social spheres to which he/she belongs. It may also reflect internal tensions, ambiguities and ambivalences contributing to the shaping of individuals' identities and to their ideological and social positioning.

FASHION IN ISLAMIC AND LESS INDUSTRIALIZED COUNTRIES

Understanding the mechanisms and social consequences of consumption practices such as fashion has long been debated and conceptualized in a context of Western developed countries (Bourdieu, 1984; Lipovetsky, 1994; Simmel, 1904). The state of the art in this research subject is largely derived from empirical studies conducted among American and European consumers. A growing interest, however, is occurring in emerging countries' consumers, and in Islamic consumption, in particular. These countries, characterized by fast economic growth and expanding domestic markets differ economically, culturally and historically from Western nations.

Referring to the Turkish consumptionscape, Sandıkcı and Ger (2002) explored existing conceptualizations of consumption practices in a non-Western context. They identified four specific consumption practices: spectacularist, nationalist, faithful and historical, illustrating different consumers' readings of contrasted realities: local/global, East/West and modern/traditional. Sandıkcı and Ger (2002) pointed out the importance of both Western cultural lifestyle and religion in the shaping of consumption patterns and in the negotiation of a traditional–modern identity by Islamic nations' consumers. The cultural globalization literature shows the tremendous cultural power of the West (usually associated with modernity) in a wide range of less industrialized countries. The 'Western lifestyle myth' (Üstüner and Holt, 2010) is central to the construction of some social class status in these countries. Religion and spiritual beliefs may affect the marketplace, demand, and consumption styles (for example clothing, food, leisure, social actions, finance) (Sandıkcı and Ger, 2001, 2007; Jones, 2007; Touzani and Hirschman, 2008; Yakin, 2007). Some consumers in Islamic countries are confronted with how to construct meanings through consumption choices, while balancing tradition and modernity, and faith and contemporary lifestyles.

The literature dealing with Islamic fashion illustrates this negotiation and ambivalence in the experience of fashion (Balasescu, 2003; Hansen, 2004; Moors, 2007). Dealing

primarily with clothing and Islamic dress (especially veiling) because of the strong link to fashion and identity building, studies emphasize the effort made by consumers to reconcile fashion and faith. For example, Moors (2007) noted that Islam and fashion are often seen as standing in a tense relationship. Islam is considered as a realm of the eternal spiritual and sacred values and the embodiment of virtues. This conception does not fit easily with fashion, which belongs to the field of surface and form, and is characterized by rapid change (Moors, 2007, p. 320). Exploring the meanings of fashion in an Iranian setting, Balasescu (2003) underlines the problematic relationship between the veil and fashion: 'Since veiling is a practice that does not belong to the "Western" space, and since fashion . . . historically belongs to the West, the veil cannot be fashion' (Balasescu, 2003, p. 47).

Nevertheless, in several Arab-Muslim countries, different and even 'paradoxical' fashion styles can be found. For instance, in Egypt, 'Islamic chic' stands besides 'Western chic' and 'ethnic chic' (Abaza, 2007, p. 281). In other Islamic countries, such as Indonesia, many attempts are made to combine fashion, tradition and religion, especially through women's magazines and stores dedicated to fashionable clothes adapted to the religious, local values (Jones, 2007).

TUNISIA: HISTORY AND CULTURAL IDENTITY

Bouhdiba, a Tunisian sociologist, describes Tunisian society as 'a human cocktail' characterized by cultural pluralism (Bouhdiba, 1978, p. 253). Because of its strategic geographical location at the core of the Mediterranean basin, Tunisia has experienced diverse civilizations through history. The original inhabitants are Berber tribes. In the tenth century BC, Phoenicians settled the north coast and founded Carthage, which became a major and rich city-state competing with Rome. Successive cultures and civilizations shaped the history and identity of today's Tunisia (Slim and Fauqué, 2001): Roman, Vandal, Jewish, Christian, Arab, Islamic, Spanish, Turkish and French, in addition to the contribution of immigrants that settled in Tunisia (Italians, Andalusians, Maltese, and so on). Arabs entered Tunisia in 670, bringing Islam to North Africa and founding the major Islamic city of Kairouan. Different Arab and/or Muslim dynasties have ruled Tunisia since (Aghlabite, Fatimide, Hafiside, Ottoman, Housseinite) (Guellouz et al. 1983; Nabli and Swiderska, 2008).

The contemporary history of Tunisia is marked by the French protectorate (1891 to 1956), seen as a colonization that introduced elements of Western (French) culture. After independence, important pro-Western reforms were introduced by President Bourguiba to modernize the country. The promotion of women's rights and the enhancement of public modern education were the key elements in these reforms. In early 1956, the new Code of Personal Status was promulgated, giving women an unprecedented status in the Muslim-Arabic world; polygamy was forbidden and divorce initiated by women authorized. Later, in 1973, abortion was legalized.

An important issue emerged at the beginning of independence: the new Tunisian national identity (Abassi, 2005). Choices were made for a break with traditional society and a move towards a modern, Western (French) inspired model. Islam remains the official state religion, but the power of religious leaders has been largely reduced, and

Bourguiba encouraged a liberal interpretation of the prescriptions of Islam. In addition, the anchoring of Tunisia in the Mediterranean space was strengthened at the expense of the traditional Arab space (Abassi, 2005).

The question of language was, and still remains, a major issue because of its effect on national identity and access to economic development. Bilingualism (Standard Arabic/French) was deliberately adopted and advocated by Bourguiba just after independence (Abassi, 2005; Messadi, 1958). While Arabic is the official national language, French was considered as the vector of modernization, rationalism and science. The knowledge of European languages and culture has been enhanced by widespread exposure to European media. However the debate was not closed; advocates of 'Arabization' continued to act dynamically to defend their cause and some reforms were introduced, such as the use of the Arabic language in the justice system (Bouhdiba, 1978).

Since the accession of the current President to power in 1987, this movement has accelerated. The only language allowed in all departments of the administration is Arabic. Classes in primary and high schools are mostly in Arabic, while university courses are still mostly in French. French continues to be widely practiced in the business, medical and cultural sectors. It also constitutes a social marker. However, French use seems to be on the decline for the overall population. This is enhanced by the increasing exposure to Middle Eastern satellite TV channels (for example Al Jazeera, Rotana, MBC). The audience of the French TV channels has declined dramatically and seems to be reserved for the intellectual and cultural elite. In parallel, and since the mid-1990s, a return to religious fervor has occurred at many levels of society, coupled with a certain conservatism: women veiling, attendance at mosques and a growing audience for Islamic TV channels. Today, Tunisian society is a mix of lifestyles: traditional, conservative, and Arab-Islamic-culture oriented, or liberal and Western-culture oriented.

METHODOLOGY

A qualitative approach was used to explore the Tunisian consumer's fashion experience and identity relationship. In-depth interviews were conducted with twenty-six Tunisian consumers aged between 21 and 60 to bring variety to the sample in terms of gender, social background and education level. All the respondents were living in the Tunis area and its suburbs (see Table 6.1 for details). Interviews lasted approximately 45 to 60 minutes; they were audio-taped and later transcribed in their entirety. Each informant was invited to speak about his/her perceptions about fashion. The purpose was the generation of ideas and opinions about fashion in general. Then, respondents were asked about their personal relationship with fashion: their motivations, inhibitors, perceptions and attitudes. Finally, interviewees' opinions about cultures, countries, and civilizations in association with fashion were solicited. The fashion–religion relationship issue was not addressed in a direct way. The objective was rather to identify personal experiences from the interviewees' discourses. Careful analysis of the interviews permitted the identification of themes, which were then matched with some pre-defined patterns extracted from literature (Miles and Huberman, 1994).

Table 6.1 Characteristics of the informants

Informants	Gender	Age	Occupation	Educational level
Henda	Female	22	Student	University
Aziza	Female	43	Executive assistant	University
Aïcha	Female	49	Housewife	Elementary school
Emna	Female	23	Student	University
Inés	Female	27	Student	University
Chehrazad	Female	22	Student	University
Mustapha	Male	53	Teacher	University
Ilyés	Male	21	Student	University
Asma	Female	60	Housewife	University
Zohra	Female	40	Worker	Elementary school
Khalil	Male	32	Actor	University
Myriam	Female	19	High school student	High school
Mouna	Female	26	Student	University
Sinda	Female	25	Interior designer	University
Soumaya	Female	24	Student	University
Omar	Male	24	Sales executive	High school
Nesrine	Female	32	Retail sales assistant	High school
Iman	Female	31	Housewife	Elementary school
Faouzia	Female	46	Housewife	High school
Sami	Male	23	Student	University
Zeineb	Female	25	Sales executive	University
Mehdi	Male	30	Businessman	University
Beya	Female	50	Bank executive	High school
Salah	Male	57	Trader	University
Lotfi	Male	30	Lawyer	University

FINDINGS

The analysis of the interview data helped identify several findings that are similar to the themes largely identified and discussed in previous research studies. Fashion appears to be associated with public goods, brands, luxury, modernity, glamour, and novelty (Balasescu, 2003; Lipovetsky, 1994; Marion 2003). It requires money and represents a materialistic vision of life, generating a feeling of frustration. Fashion gives consumers some freedom when it comes to personalizing their choice, but it can also create some instability because of the frequent changes and expenditures it involves (Bordo, 2003; Ewen, 1988; Firat, 1991). Besides this general conception of fashion, the content analysis shows challenging and ambivalent identity dimensions. Indeed, the fashion–respondent relationship and experience imply deep existential questions and tensions about self identity, social identity and particularly cultural identity.

M2734 - SANDIKCI PRINT.indd 103 25/07/2011 14:40

FASHION AND INDIVIDUAL IDENTITY

At the individual level, two major and opposing ideas emerged from the interviewees' discourse: on the one hand, fashion is seen as a means for building and expressing personality; on the other hand, individuals tend to reject it in order to avoid conformity. Differentiation and personalization have been mentioned by respondents. Following fashion and being different from others seems to be more than a goal – it is a source of pride: 'I like standing out from the crowd, with my own style, different from everybody'. The terms 'creativity' and 'innovation' are usually cited by interviewees when speaking about fashion, indicating a tight link between fashion, especially apparel, and the shaping of one's identity and personal opinions and values:

> In our society, clothing has a great importance. It's very important . . . even for people's behavior. I think it's important to be handsome. If someone is handsome . . . well, if he feels handsome, he'll get more confidence, it has a great influence even on his way of speaking, his behavior with people. That's it. So . . . I think it's important. You know, style and colors reflect strongly someone's image! You understand. As I told you, style and audacious colors . . . you know there are people who don't accept to change, they remain on the same stage. It means that . . . for example, with computers, some people stopped at Windows 98, they don't accept Vista. These are . . . er . . . new things. Maybe, for some people change is difficult because it needs some effort. (Sinda, 25 years, interior designer)

However, some informants do not try to stand out through fashion and think even that physical appearance is secondary, regretting that in our society many people judge others by their appearances:

> Unfortunately, we have prejudices about the way people are dressed. If we see someone dressed with Max Mara's shoes or something like that, we look at him/her as someone important because unfortunately, today money consumes us! But someone with high principles won't be influenced easily . . . well, it depends. As far as I am concerned, when someone comes at my office, a customer . . . if he speaks well, introduces himself well, I respect him, I talk to him, I try to understand what he's thinking of, and I treat him the same way he acts. (Beya, 50 years, bank executive)

Constructing an individual identity is one of the most important issues discussed in the fashion literature (Balasescu, 2003; Lipovetsky, 1994; Marion, 2003; Sandıkcı and Ger, 2002; Sennett, 1994, Thompson and Haytko, 1997). Tunisian consumers express the same challenging fashion and self identity building relationship.

However, it is useful to point out that the need for differentiation and peculiarities are not recurrent in the interviewees' discourse, as only a few respondents clearly mentioned these themes. It is also interesting to note a kind of ambivalence. People look to fashion as a vehicle for differentiation, and for personality assertion, but at the same time, this is rejected by others in order to conform to society. Consumers can be prone to internal tensions that can be revealed through their discourse: 'I like being different even if I'm shy'. It seems that this ambivalence regarding the role of fashion is due to the pressure brought by modernity and the rise of 'material culture', where dress, for example, may be regarded as 'armor' (Entwistle, 2000) or as a 'mirror' of identity (Hansen, 2004). Individuals feel the need to give further importance to their appearance in order to

be part of society, but also to have their own identity without looking like 'clones': 'fashion articulates a tension between conformity and differentiation: it expresses the contradictory desires to fit in and stand out' (Entwistle, 2000, p. 116). The relationship attire–fashion–self identity is frequently analyzed in the literature. Theorists of fashion work in a paradigm that links clothing, body, and identities, because of clothing's visibility in the public space (Balasescu, 2003; Hansen, 2004) This is particularly true for the case of Islamic dress in both Western and non-Western countries (Jones, 2007; Sandikci and Ger, 2010; Tarlo, 2007; Yakin, 2007). Our findings are in line with such results. The Tunisian consumers interviewed show a particular interest in dress and appearance when speaking about fashion. They express their personal values and lifestyle choices through their attitudes to clothing. Particularly, the need for conformity is more largely expressed by interviewees when describing their fashion experience.

FASHION AND SOCIAL IDENTITY DIMENSION

Social identity comprises the parts of a person's identity that come from belonging to particular groups (age, ethnicity, family, religion, gender). It refers to one's way of thinking about oneself and others based on social groupings (Hannum, 2007). Social identity helps individuals categorize people into groups and identify themselves with certain groups. It is through belonging to a particular group, that the individual acquires a social identity and establishes or preserves a difference in favor of his/her own group (Mucchielli, 1999; Tajfel, 1972). The data analysis shows that, for the interviewees, fashion plays an important role in defining their social identity. This can be reflected through a double polarity: a positive meaning and a critical one. The positive meaning can be deduced through the themes of belonging, security, and communication within a group: 'thanks to fashion, people know they belong to a tribe, they are not alone.' Critical meanings can be inferred through themes and expressions such as 'limits,' 'respect,' 'social,' 'constraint,' 'blind imitation' and 'ridiculous.' These refer to the rejection of fashion practices and to people adopting them, in order to be similar to a reference group. One of the respondents pointed out that people following fashion could be easily criticized; 'many people don't respect the limits characterizing our society, they try to follow fashion and that makes them ridiculous.' Others evoke mimicry and exaggeration, arguing that when people try to follow fashion trends and to imitate others blindly, they cannot be respected.

Many interviewees stressed the respect of society and the limits that should not be crossed. According to some of them, following fashion trends should have limits. For example, Myriam chooses clothes to fit both herself and society. Societal approval seems to be very important for the respondents. Having respect and keeping one's society's esteem, by making appropriate choices, is of great importance. Having a pleasant and harmonious relationship with the family is a great concern, for girls notably. Three interviewees even mentioned some conflicts in families, and between generations, related to the non-respect of social standards and decency: 'since I was little, I have acquired some habits in my family. We learned to have respect for family and religion, that's why I don't care about fashion, my parents have no interest in fashion'. Thus, for some respondents, there is a contrast between fashion and 'respect,' 'decency,' 'family conformity and even

'religion'. Because of its association with the West, fashion is frequently considered in Islamic societies to contrast with piety and the tenets of religious morality (Balasescu, 2003; Yakin, 2007). Consumers in these societies are in continuing negotiation between different individual and social limits such as fashion/faith, tradition/modernity, piety/modernity (Jones, 2007; Moors, 2007, Sandıkcı and Ger, 2002).

The relationship between fashion and social identity construction has been highlighted in several research studies (Cholachatpinyo et al., 2002; Hansen, 2004; Marion, 2003; Thompson and Haytko, 1997). According to Thompson and Haytko, (1997, p. 26), the meaning given to fashion has been used by interviewees as a way of creating differentiation or detachment from the group. It can also be understood as a vehicle for inducing social affiliation and belonging to the group. This dialectic 'need for individualization/need for conformity' is a classical divide concerning the people's relationship with fashion (Barnard, 2002; Douglas and Isherwood, 1979; Marion, 2003). For the Tunisian consumer, the need for conformity and belonging seems to be more important than the need for differentiation. This may be explained by the collectivist dimension of the Arab-Muslim culture, which privileges the group, in particular the family (Hofstede, 2001).

FASHION AND CULTURAL IDENTITY

An important cultural identity dimension emerges from the respondents' discourses. It is illustrated by two main topics, religion and morality, and the dilemma between Eastern and Western cultures.

Identity, Morality and Religion

Religion emerged as a significant component of the whole discourse of interviewees. Different attitudes and interactions were observed. The analysis revealed a positive relationship between fashion and religion, arguing that being fashionable can be completely in agreement with spiritual and religious thought: 'religion is in agreement with fashion as it's in agreement with beauty; God is beautiful and loves beauty' (Faouzia, 46 years, housewife).

Some other respondents tried to have a neutral discourse regarding the relationship between fashion and religion suggesting that religion should be of a subjective and personal consideration and so should fashion be likewise: 'Our relationship to fashion is subjective I think . . . so as long as it's neither shocking nor provocative, it's not bad, you see. After all, religion isn't against beauty, on the contrary. But there are limits we shouldn't cross . . . that's all, not more, not less and everyone sees things in his own way' (Mehdi, 30, businessman).

Nevertheless, most of the respondents emphasized the conflictual relationship between religion and fashion; 'I'm conservative, and it's the same thing for my daughter. I can't let her wear fashionable things: I don't at all allow anything that comes against decency and religion' (Zohra, 40, worker). Other respondents speak about morality. According to some, fashion is a source of immorality, frustration, discrimination, and social stratification. Consumer manipulation is also evoked by some respondents who blame the

fashion industry for making money by encouraging consumption in order to increase their profits.

Rejecting fashion can be perceived as a sign of moral virtue (seriousness and self-control) (Thompson and Haytko, 1997). Actually, Western societies have often blamed fashion for its 'materialistic and tyrannical' effect, imposing frequent, stressful, and expensive changes (Bordo, 2003; Ewen, 1988; Lipovetsky, 1994). By contrast, in Islamic societies, rejection of fashion is more often due to its tight link to the West and to modernity (Balasescu, 2003; Jones, 2007). In the present research study, the analysis of respondents' opinions and attitudes shows an ambivalent and multidimensional relationship between moral values, decency, religion and fashion. Religious beliefs seem to have a great influence on individuals' consumption practices and choices, as is the case in other Muslim societies (Abaza, 2007; Moors, 2007; Sandıkcı and Ger, 2007). Indeed several studies show the existence of a variety of practices and styles of consumption in Islamic societies. According to these studies, religion should not be regarded as an obstacle to consumption practices even if some individuals feel a challenge in having a 'faithful' and modern consumption at the same time (Balasescu, 2003; Jones, 2007; Sandıkcı and Ger, 2002, 2010). From the anthropological and historical point of view, Olson (1985) expresses an ideological conflict between secularism and Muslim identity in Turkey that led both orientations to coexist. In modern Tunisia, such a conflict has existed since independence, and the issue of Tunisian identity has been widely debated, notably in relation to the Western/Mediterranean/Arab-Muslim cultural orientation and the language issue (Abassi, 2005; Bouhdiba, 1978). According to Bouhdiba (1978, p. 258) 'The adoption of the Arab language is equivalent to the maintenance of the collective personality and national identity'.

Identity and the West–East Dilemma

In the process of their socialization, individuals submit to standards, values, and representations of their environmental culture that they progressively make their own. In this way, they build a cultural identity, shared with other members of their group. This identity can be composite and intercultural for some people, in the sense that the individual may integrate different cultures at the same time (Arab, Muslim, Mediterranean, French, local, global). Fashion is a consumption context that arouses the cultural identity question for the study's informants. The discourse analysis revealed the complexity of this relationship. Almost all interviewees associated fashion with the West: Western culture produces and diffuses fashion. Some respondents felt uncomfortable with this state of things and blamed blind imitation by the Tunisian consumers of (Western) fashion that can lead to a certain loss of identity; 'teenagers mostly imitate Europeans and this denotes a weak personality', 'fashion encourages neglecting decency and shyness which characterize our Muslim society'. For many interviewees, fashion is a cause for acculturation, an addiction to the West. The subsequent alienation from Islam could also be a form of denial of one's origins. Other respondents mentioned that Tunisians try to imitate the European way of life and that they show preference for Western brands. This relationship with the West may explain the importance of the 'made-in' concept in the perceptions of and choice of fashion products, especially when concerning products originating from Europe or the US. Countries like France or Italy were noted by

interviewees as fashion reference countries, followed by Spain and the US. The West is admired by many, thanks to its creative potential, freedom, and way of life: 'We like living like European people'. Some comparisons were made with Tunisian creativity and fashion, revealing some frustration and discomfort regarding Tunisian culture:

> There's a problem with creation in Tunisia, creators rely only on tradition they try to transform . . . the fact that there are no Tunisian creators is problematic, we have to try to innovate, we make fun of those who try to be creative just because they are Tunisian. What comes from the West is admired; we should invest in fashion in order to create a competitive advantage. Tunisia should invent its own fashion. (Lotfi, 30, lawyer)

Imitating Western fashion can be perceived by some consumers, in particular those from Less Industrialized Countries (LIC) or Islamic countries, as a way of accessing a higher social class and modernity. This would explain consumers' interest in foreign brands – European and American ones – that represent important status symbols: 'LIC consumers emulate middle-class consumers of the West, whom they view as the most relevant status group above them. So in this model Western goods operate as powerful global status symbols that citizens of LICs deeply desire and look for' (Üstüner and Holt, 2010). In some Islamic countries, where women wear the Islamic *hijab*, the middle and upper-class women choose to wear headscarves displaying a famous Western designer (Balasescu, 2003, p. 43).

This opinion is shared by many respondents who regret a lack of creativity, especially concerning Tunisian apparel. Interviewees mention traditional clothing and jewelry. Some recognize attempts made by designers in order to modernize traditional crafts through color changes, for example. They note, furthermore, some renewed interest in certain countries towards traditional products. Other respondents wish to see a specific Tunisian fashion that respects their national identity, blaming the fact that most Arab countries are still stuck in traditional ways and use traditional products. However, an exception is made for Lebanon, considered by some respondents as a reference in the field of fashion. Respondents give examples of some famous Lebanese singers and TV presenters; 'most of the Eastern countries are "followers", except Lebanon which has managed to distinguish itself from other Eastern countries' (Myriam, 19, high school student).

Abaza (2007) mentions the need for Egyptians to have a national dress and to focus on their culture and origins. She underlines the success of new Egyptian-ethnic brands in Egyptian high society. Those brands are created by Lebanese designers, who revisited traditional Egyptian dress, jewelry and furniture. Some authors note that fashion is no longer the exclusive property of the West, and that contemporary fashions are created rapidly and in great volume in Latin America, Africa and Asia, redefining both consumption and fashion itself, in a growing globalized world (Hansen, 2004, p. 370).

Some researchers in Islamic countries note the revival of certain traditional practices and rituals such as the 'henna-night ceremony' or traditional dance. These rituals seem to raise people's pride in their history and traditions (Üstüner et al., 2000; Sandıkcı and Ger, 2002). The debate surrounding religion and identity should be related to the question of modernity directly linked to the Western influence (Sandıkcı and Ger, 2001, 2002). The Tunisian interviewees' discourse revealed internal tensions and ambiguous feelings expressed through their fashion-relationship: the West, the main fashion dif-

fuser, is perceived as a source of dream and fantasy, but also as a source of frustration. Some informants assert that they sometimes feel uncomfortable with their own culture, because they have difficulty in defining its boundaries. These boundaries swing between tradition and modernity, and between East and West. Globalization, technological development and mass media exposure has changed the face of societies leading to the coexistence of Eastern and Western culture in many countries. Consumers in Muslim countries often face the dilemma of choosing between access to some products or activities (especially Western ones, usually associated with modernity) on the one hand, and respecting the taboos imposed by religion on the other hand (Balasescu, 2003; Belk et al., 2003; Jones, 2007; Moors, 2007).

Our findings stress the importance of the cultural issue in the Tunisian consumer–fashion relationship and in the building of individual identity. Tunisian interviewees convey through their fashion discourse, their sensitivity to the East–West dilemma and to the question of tradition and modernity, joining thereby other consumers from Islamic or less developed countries (Balasescu, 2003; Jones, 2007). Different attitudes were however identified regarding fashion and Islamic religion; some of the informants find that the Islamic religion is in opposition to fashion (considered as intimately related to the West). Some others, however, perceive a certain harmony between fashion and Islamic religion; they consider that the idea of beauty is linked both to fashion and to God. Other respondents show yet a detachment from the religious issue when considering fashion.

DISCUSSION AND MANAGERIAL IMPLICATIONS

In our research, we explored the fashion universe as a psychological, social, and cultural phenomenon in order to understand the relationship of the Tunisian consumer to fashion. The discourse analysis about the respondents' fashion experience revealed an interesting and complex identity–fashion relationship translating all the ambiguities and tensions of the consumers' relationship with themselves, with modernity, culture, religion, and society.

Indeed, the interviewee-fashion interaction seems to be complex and consists of contradictory feelings of pleasure and frustration, admiration and denigration, identification and rejection. According to Thompson and Haytko (1997), the complexity of the consumer-fashion relationship can be explained by the fact that consumers express their relationship with themselves, with others and with their culture. Tensions, conflicts and ambiguities characterize these relations, but contribute also to assessing consumers' identity. Individuals' perception of fashion reflects their conception of life, of the world surrounding them, and of their identity. Fashion constitutes a means for asserting personality and expressing personal values. It is used by some respondents to fulfill the need for differentiation and the willingness to stand apart from the others, but can also be a means to meet the desire of conformity to a group. This paradox is frequently raised in the literature dealing with fashion (Barnard, 2002; Finkelstein, 1996). According to Brewer (1991), the individual is looking for a social identity that aims to satisfy simultaneously the needs for assimilation and differentiation, in order to reach the highest level of distinction. Yet, our findings show that the relationship of the consumer to fashion

seems to be more reflective of 'conformity and membership' than of a quest for differentiation and specificity. In their narrative discourses, the importance of family, respect for social and religious limits, and community belonging are more frequently evoked than the desire for uniqueness and differentiation. This can be explained by the collectivist character of the Tunisian culture as a part of the Arab-Muslim culture, as compared to the individualist character of many Western societies. Hofstede (2001) states that this collectivist culture is manifested through a close long-term commitment to the member 'group' – a family or extended family, or extended relationships. Loyalty in a collectivist culture is important, and frequently overrides most other societal rules. Thus, even though political reforms contributed widely to the modernization of Tunisian society, and even though Tunisian women experienced real emancipation, the original Islamic culture and traditional values still shape deeply Tunisia's national identity and consequently the Tunisian fashion relationship. Pressure for conformity to the group is still an important character of this society. This might be enhanced in the present by a recent surge in interest in religion and a more conservative vision of life by certain categories of the population. This pressure for conformity is, however, probably variable among the different subcultures in Tunisian society, notably urban/rural, conservative/liberal or French culture educated/Arab culture educated.

Furthermore, the respondents' interaction with fashion embodies a significant religious and moral component that seems to be deeply rooted in Tunisians' attitude towards fashion. This dimension is integral to the cultural identity issue. Tunisia is considered as an Arab Muslim society, but it has also historically and geographically a strong relationship with Mediterranean and Western cultures and is considered as sensitive to cultural pluralism (Bouhdiba, 1978). While searching in the West for a modern fashionable lifestyle, the Tunisian consumer remains also attached to his/her national, Islamic and Eastern values. Frustration, discomfort, and ambiguity may then characterize the fashion–consumer relationship. In fact, the fear of marginalization of local culture is a constant preoccupation of Arab, African, and Third World populations (Bouhdiba, 1978; Hansen, 2004). The value systems of the Western world and the world of Islamic countries are different. For instance, Western postmodern culture celebrates difference and personalization, whereas in countries like Tunisia, the influence of social norms, limits, and taboos still prevails and strongly influences the respondents' relationship with fashion.

The cultural identity issue is also manifested through the regret expressed by interviewees about the lack of a 'Tunisian fashion' that would enhance local specificities and identity. Fashion is perceived by respondents as coming primarily from the West. This West is admired for its creativity and freedom in generating fashion styles, but also feared for its ability to blur local particularities. Informants are torn between the Western model, whose lifestyles and values are spread through mass media, and local values. Polhemus (1973) points out that countries evolving towards Westernization can face some uncertainty caused by interactions between Western culture and the national identity. The difficulty of building a modern Islamic identity in a global world is also discussed by some researchers: 'Constructing a "modern" Islamic identity within the local power network involves simultaneously negotiating multiple tensions – the tensions between the West and the East, the secular and the religious, the urban and the rural – and distancing itself from various internal others' (Sandıkcı and Ger, 2001). What characterizes the Arab and

Tunisian societies is that, there is at the same time, a conscious and unconscious attachment to a certain conception of the past as an anchor with the ultimate truth (the Islamic one), and a strong desire to participate in the history of the world, based in large part on the industrialized occidental civilization. 'This is what is very often confusing, because what we call the modern world is not the others' modernity but a rediscovery, in new terms, of oneself with oneself and with others' (Bouhdiba, 1978, p. 211).

Finally, compared to past research on fashion in Muslim countries, our findings also underline the importance of the same main issue: the challenging negotiation between fashion, modernity, West and religion. It seems that, whatever their level of sophistication, their history or ethnic origin, Muslim societies experience, through the fashion relationship, the same dilemma relating to the construction of the self. However, specificities may relate to more practical issues, such as the commodification of Islamic fashion or products and the development of related markets (Islamic appeals, outlets and stores, magazines, dolls). Such markets are, for instance, underdeveloped or nonexistent in Tunisia.

Some managerial implications emerge from the present research study. The launching of Tunisian fashion brands, particularly in the clothing field, can benefit from the positive association made by Tunisian consumers between fashion and Western countries. An option for the company would be to choose a brand name with Western connotations and a Western positioning (communication and store design). Today this kind of strategy seems to be adopted by some clothing and accessories stores: for example, brands like 'Blue Island', 'Dixit' and 'Sasio' are Tunisian, but are positioned solely as European brands. A second implication concerns creativity in the field of fashion. According to the informants' discourse, there is a deep willingness to reconcile Western modern fashion and Tunisian design. It is an important niche that can be filled by Tunisian fashion creators whether in clothing or jewelry and accessories while preserving the product's Tunisian 'spirit' through fabric, design or even communication.

The traditional Arabic-Muslim dimension of the Tunisian identity seems to be exalted in special occasions such as family ceremonies, religious rituals and some national events. Fashion designers can seize these opportunities to propose adapted product lines and, at the same time, making the connection between consumers and their national and cultural identity. Another implication concerns communication of fashion goods. Is it always interesting for advertising agencies to choose 'Western' positioning and Western 'icons'? Which topics should they adopt for fashionable products: differentiation and uniqueness (relating to Western values) or belonging and affiliation (relating to Eastern values)?

Future research perspectives may be proposed. Even if the question of gender seems to be a classical issue, it is particularly interesting in the case of Arab-Muslim countries. The male–fashion relationship in these countries may reveal interesting social representations of the 'modern versus traditional' Muslim male. Fashion is often considered in these societies as part of the women's world. Traditional and religious factors may shape this image. However, globalization and the mass media suggest other male images. How does the Muslim male deal with fashion? Another issue to investigate is the difference between veiled and non-veiled women in their relationship to fashion. The question of the veil has been debated in the previous literature mainly from the point of view of veiled women (Abaza, 2007; Balasescu, 2003; Jones, 2007, Sandıkcı and Ger, 2010). It would

be interesting to extend the research question to the experience and attitudes of veiled and non-veiled women relating to fashion in general. Finally, an intercultural research study on the relationship to fashion between Muslim Arab and non-Arab consumers, and between Muslim and non-Muslim consumers could highlight the specificities of each culture or sub-culture regarding fashion experience and could help to elucidate the cultural identity issue.

BIBLIOGRAPHY

Abassi, D. (2005), *Entre Bourguiba et Hannibal – Identité Tunisienne et Histoire depuis L'Indépendance,* Karthala éditions.

Abaza, M. (2007), 'Shifting landscapes of fashion in contemporary Egypt', *Fashion Theory*, **11** (2/3), 281–98.

Balasescu, A. (2003), 'Teheran chic, Islamic headscarves, fashion designers and new geographies of modernity', *Fashion Theory,* 7 (1), 39–56.

Barnard, M. (2002), *Fashion as Communication*, London: Routledege.

Barthes, R. (1967), *Système de la Mode*, Paris: édition du Seuil.

Belk R.W. (1988), 'Possessions and the extended self', *Journal of Consumer Research*, **115** (September), 139–67.

Belk, R., G. Ger and S. Askegaard (2003), 'The fire of desire: a multisited inquiry into consumer passion', *Journal of Consumer Research*, **30** (December), 326–51.

Bocock, R. (1993), *Consumption: Key Ideas*, London: Routledge.

Bordo, S. (2003), *Unbearable Weight: Feminism, Western Culture and the Body*, Berkeley, CA: University of California Press.

Bouhdiba, A (1978), *Culture et Société,* Publications de l'université de Tunis.

Bourdieu, P. (1984), *Distinction: A Social Critique of the Judgment of Taste,* Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press.

Brewer, M.B. (1991), 'The social self: on being the same and different in the same time', *Personality and Social Psychology Bulletin*, **17** (5), 475–82.

Carpenter, J.M., E. Moore and M. Fairhurst (2005), 'Consumer shopping value for retail brands', *Journal of Fashion Marketing and Management*, **9** (1), 43–53.

Cholachatpinyo, A., I. Padgett, M. Crocker and B. Fletche (2002), 'A conceptual model of the fashion process, part 1: The fashion transformation process model', *Journal of Fashion Marketing and Management*, 6 (1), 11–23.

Craik, J. (1994), *The Face of Fashion*, London: Routledge.

Davis, F. (1992), *Fashion, Culture and Identity*, Chicago: University of Chicago Press.

Douglas, M. and B. Isherwood (1979), *The World of Goods: Towards an Anthropology of Consumption*, Havmoadsworth: Penguin.

Entwistle, J. (2000), *The Fashioned Body: Fashion, Dress, and the Modern Social Theory*, Wiley-Blackwell.

Ewen, S. (1988), *All Consuming Images: The Politics of Style in Contemporary Culture*, New York: Basic.

Finkelstein, J. (1991), *The Fashioned Self*, Cambridge: Polity Press, 213.

Finkelstein, J. (1996), *After a Fashion*, Melbourne: Melbourne University Press.

Firat, A.F., (1991), 'The consumer in post-modernity', in R.H. Holman and M.R. Solomon (eds), *Advances in Consumer Research*, vol. 18, Provo, UT: Association of Consumer Research, pp. 70–76.

Guellouz, E., A. Masmoudi and M. Smida (1983), *Histoire de la Tunisie : Les Temps Modernes*, Société Tunisienne de Diffusion.

Hannum K.M. (2007), *Social Identity, Knowing Yourself, Leading Other*, Center for Creative Leadership, North Carolina.

Hansen, K.T. (2004), 'The word in dress: anthropological perspectives on clothing, fashion and culture', *Annual Review of Anthropology*, **33**, 369–92.

Hetzel, P. (1995), 'Le rôle de la mode et du design dans la société de consommation postmoderne : Quels enjeux pour les entreprises ?', *Revue Française de Marketing*, **151**, 19–29.

Hofstede, G. (2001), *Culture's Consequences: Comparing Values, Behaviors, Institutions, and Organizations across Nations*, Thousand Oaks, CA: Sage Publications.

Jones, C. (2007), 'Fashion and faith in urban Indonesia', *Fashion Theory* , **11** (2/3), 211–32.

Lipovetsky, G. (1994), *The Empire of Fashion: Dressing Modern Democracy*, (trans. C. Porter), Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press.

Lipovetsky, G. and S.Charles (2005), *Hypermodern Times*, Polity.

Lury, C. (1996), *Consumer Culture*, New Brunswick, NJ: Rutgers University, University Press.
Marion, G. (2003), 'Apparence et identité : une approche sémiotique du discours des adolescentes à propos de leur expérience de la mode', *Recherche et Application Marketing*, **18** (2), 1–29.
McCracken, G. (1986), 'Culture and consumption: a theoretical account and the structure of meaning of consumer goods', *Journal of Consumer Research*, **13** (June), 71–84.
McCracken, G. (1988), *Culture and Consumption*, Bloomington, IN: University Press.
Messadi, M. (1958), Opening speech for the freedom of culture, Tunis, 13–18 April (in Arabic).
Miles, M.B. and A.M. Huberman (eds) (1994), *Qualitative Data Analysis: An Expanded Source Book*, 2nd edition, Sage Publications.
Moors, A. (2007), 'Fashionable Muslims: notions of self, religion and society in San'a', *Fashion Theory*, **11** (2/3), 319–46.
Mucchielli, A. (1999), *L'identité*, 4th edn, Paris: PUF.
Nabli, F., and H. Swiderska (2008), *Tunisie, Flash Historique*, Kolekcja Fathel.
O'Cass, A. (2001), 'Consumer self-monitoring, materialism and involvement, in fashion clothing', *Australasian Marketing Journal*, **9** (1), 46–60.
Olson, E.A. (1985), 'Muslim identity and secularism in contemporary Turkey: "The headscarf dispute"', *Anthropological Quarterly*, **58** (4), 161–71.
Parker, R.S., C. Hermans and A. Schaefer (2004), 'Fashion consciousness of Chinese, Japanese and American', *Journal of Fashion Marketing and Management,* **8** (2), 176–86.
Peters, T.J. (1992), *Liberation Management: Necessary Disorganization for the Nanosecond Nineties*, New York: A.A. Knopf.
Polhemus, J.T. (1973), 'Fashion, antifashion and the body image', *New Society*, **11**, 73–76.
Rocha, M.A., L. Hammond and D. Hawkins (2005), 'Age, gender and national factors in fashion consumption', *Journal of Fashion Marketing and Management*, **9** (4), 380–90.
Sandıkcı, Ö. and G. Ger (2001), 'Fundamental fashions: the cultural politics of the turban and the Levi's', in M.C. Gilly and J. Meyers-Levey (eds), *Advances in Consumer Research*, vol. 28, Valdosta, GA: Association for Consumer Research, pp. 146–50.
Sandıkcı, Ö. and G. Ger (2002), 'In-between modernities and postmodernities: theorizing Turkish consumptionscape', in Susan M. Broniarczvk and Kent Nakamoto (eds), *Advances in Consumer Research*, vol. 29, Valdosta, GA: Association for Consumer Research, pp. 465–70.
Sandıkcı, Ö. and G. Ger (2007), 'Constructing and representing the Islamic consumer in Turkey', *Fashion Theory*, **11** (2/3), 189–210.
Sandıkcı, Ö. and G. Ger (2010), 'Veiling in style: how does a stigmatized practice become fashionable?', *Journal of Consumer Research*, **37** (1), 15–36.
Sennett, R. (1994), *The fall of the Public Man*, New York: W.W. Norton.
Simmel, G. (1904), 'Fashion', *International Quarterly*, **10**, 130–55 published in French in G. Simmel, *La tragédie de la culture et autres essais*, Rivages, 1988.
Slim, H., and N. Fauqué (2001), *La Tunisie Antique: De Hannibal à Saint Augustin* Paris: Mengès.
Solomon, M.R. (2004), *Consumer Behavior: Buying, Having, and Being*, 6th edn, Upper Saddle River, NJ: Pearson/Prentice Hall.
Solomon, M.R. and N.J. Rabolt (2009), *Consumer Behavior in Fashio*, Upper Saddle River, NJ: Pearson Education.
Tajfel, H. (eds) (1972), *La Catégorisation Sociale, Introduction à la Psychologie sociale vol. 1*, Moscow and, Paris: Larousse.
Tarlo, E. (2007), 'Islamic cosmopolitanism: the sartorial biographies of three Muslim women in London', *Fashion Theor*, **11** (2/3), 143–72.
Thompson, C. and D. Haytko (1997), 'Speaking of fashion: consumer uses of fashion discourses and the appropriation of countervailing cultural meanings', *Journal of Consumer Research*, **24** (June), 15–42.
Touzani, M. and E. Hirschman (2008), 'Cultural syncretism and ramadan observance: consumer research visits Islam', *Advances in Consumer Research*, **35**, 374–80.
Üstüner, T. and D.B. Holt (2007), 'Dominated consumer acculturation: the social construction of poor migrant women's consumer identity projects in a Turkish squatter', *Journal of Consumer Research*, **34** (June), 42–56.
Üstüner, T. and D.B. Holt (2010), 'Toward a theory of status consumption in Less Industrialized Countries', *Journal of Consumer Research*, **37** (June), 37–56.
Üstüner, T., G. Ger and D.B. Holt (2000), 'Consuming ritual: reframing the Turkish henna-night ceremony', *Advances in Consumer Research*, **27**, 209–14.
Yakin, A. (2007), 'Islamic Barbie: The politics of gender and performativity', *Fashion Theory*, **11** (2/3), 173–88.